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The new powers of *pedsovet*: social control during the Thaw and the transformation of disciplinary practice in a town school, 1953—1968

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On March 22, 1962, the pedagogical council of school number 1 in Toropetz was hearing the disciplinary case of a boy who stabbed a fellow student in his back with a lancet. To call a student to stand in front of the *pedsovet* (pedagogical council) for reproof was a punishment ubiquitous in Soviet schools of the period. The procedure combined some features of a trial with a ritual of public confession. The boy’s classroom teacher (*klassnyi rukovoditel’*) presented the case to the council, and the teachers questioned her and the boy. The incident was obviously considered to be a serious one, though the boy claimed that the strike was accidental, because he forgot that he had a lancet in his hand while he was sharpening a pencil. The ritual was concluded by the boy’s admission of guilt and the announcement of his sentence—a lowered grade for behavior and a strict reprimand in his personal file.

What makes this case indicative of the new trends in school discipline of Khrushchev’s time is the presence of the boy’s father at the meeting and the way he interacts with the teachers. During

questioning, the father had to explain his inability to control the behavior of his son by telling that for the last year he lived “uncoordinated” (*nesoglasovanno*) with his wife, and she alone was responsible for the upbringing of their son. He further asks the teachers for permission (sic!) to take his son with him to live in Leningrad. But most remarkably, after the boy’s sentence is announced, the boy is asked to leave the room and the meeting turns into a public shaming ritual for the boy’s father. Several teachers in turn denounce his behavior at home: drunkenness, fighting, abusing his wife. They suggest to isolate his son from the family, to deny the father parental rights and to evict him from home. The scene is concluded with the father’s confession of drinking and beating his wife and with his plea to the teachers to talk to his wife to help them restore the family.

There are clear signs of Khrushchev-era policies on dealing with deviant behavior in this case. The de-Stalinizing society during Khrushchev’s time was characterized by a general policy shift that stressed persuasion over punishment in dealing with delinquent behavior². This new policy in many respects presupposed public participation in disciplining the erring individuals. The participants were primarily from working collectives, local party and Komsomol branches along with various volunteer organizations, all covered by the hard-to-translate Russian term *obshchestvennost’*. The party and the state actively promoted public shaming as a central disciplinary tool to be used by the members of *obshchestvennost’*, apparently seeing it as a silver bullet solution to social control problems. But what seems to me the most striking and suggestive in the pedsovet hearing that introduced this paper is the semblance of power of the pedsovet apparently assumed by *both* the teachers and the father. In fact, the teachers had no legal authority over the father, neither to grant or withdraw permission to take his son to Leningrad,

nor to fulfill any of the threats they voiced, all of which would require at least a decision of the Commission on the Affairs of Minors or a ruling by the court.

The perceived powers of the *pedsovet* could be explained away with a reference to the symbolic status and resources granted to the Soviet public during the Thaw. There seems to be a broad consensus in the literature that the level of social agency of rank-and-file citizens involved in the *obshchestvennost'* campaign was rising as a necessary condition and an inevitable side effect of the implemented policies³. Most importantly, the public was given considerable leeway in defining misconduct, which resulted in harsher and more intrusive enforcement of social control on the part of the community members compared to the state⁴. This is manifest in how the teachers target the father's deviant behavior at home⁵. Thus, the teachers' attacks may be explained by their internalized agency in defining deviance, and the father's submissiveness by his humble position in front of the authority of the school. Yet based on analysis of the disciplinary records of Soviet schools in the 1950s and 1960s, I believe there is more to it than the symbolic dominance and authority. There seems to be a real expectation of action on the part of the teachers, and indeed it was backed up by power that was not purely symbolical.

The state campaign to outsource some efforts to control delinquency to the Soviet public was not limited to propaganda promoting public shaming. It was backed up by a number of institutional changes that effectively transferred to citizens some of the disciplinary authority over their peers. These changes can be roughly grouped under two categories: the transformation of the penal system, and the empowering of the public institutions. The general trend in the penal system of the 1950s may be characterized as a broader use of lesser punishments⁶. A parallel move was the urge to pass the lesser offenders to public groups outside of the penal system, sending them to be

reformed by the collectives instead, known in the literature as a soft line on criminal punishment. Existing institutions, like the party and the Komsomol, served as a backbone to enforce public censure with their customary instruments of social pressure, but new institutions with new powers granted were also established. The two most prominent of these in the late 1950s were the comrades' courts, which were meant to handle private cases to lighten the burden of the people's court, and vigilante brigades that were created to patrol urban streets⁷. The same trends were attested in prosecution of minors, with significantly fewer minors sent to prison by 1958. The corresponding civil institution meant to handle lesser offenses was the Commission on the Affairs of Minors, which was reinstated in 1961.⁸ Beyond the usual persuasion and censure, the commissions were granted power to impose moderate fines, and to send children to boarding schools as a replacement for jails for children under 14.

Whether these policy changes were driven by the utopian vision of social control under communism (the so-called "withering of the state"), or by ideas of utilitarian efficiency⁹, it is clear that the resulting system did not quite work as planned. Historians who studied everyday social policing during the Thaw consistently found evidence of either misused power or essential powerlessness at the grassroots level. The courts and police were sending clearly inappropriate cases to collectives and comrades' courts or, on the contrary, mostly ignored their existence. The working collectives used soft-line policies to cover up the misbehavior of those whom they cared about, and simply ignored others. Citizens manipulated the judgment of a collective to attain their personal goals, instead of observing the ideals of the communist morality. Vigilante brigades were often narrow and arbitrary in defining acceptable behavior, and sometimes turned violent themselves. In many cases the volunteer organizations were dysfunctional, existing only

on paper. Even policy itself was inconsistent, rapidly overturning to hard-line after the announcement of the soft-line¹⁰. The preferred catch-all explanation while interpreting these phenomena is to refer to the controversies of the political climate of the Thaw¹¹. The reality of this generalization notwithstanding, the correspondences in the patterns of dysfunction leave room for further investigation of the structural conditions that defined the interplay of power between the public and the state during Khrushchev's Thaw.

In this paper, I suggest that the power to perform social control, delegated by the state, did not only create new and empower existing public institutions, but more importantly, it created *links* between the state penal institutions and other collectives outside of the penal system, and had the means to keep those links active. These channels for passing individual delinquency cases around between penal institutions, police, civil and volunteer organizations formed a broadening access network allowing a growing number of citizens to victimize their peers and hand them *back to the state*. I argue that it is the power of this network that was actually felt by the unfortunate father and his son, impersonated by the group of teachers they were confronting at the moment.

I use the case of the pedsovet to analyze the dynamics of this networked power. In the discussion of Khrushchev's new paradigm of social control, the school and its disciplinary practices remained largely an overlooked topic. Mass secondary school was not among new or reinstated institutions of *obshchestvennost'*, as it was not specifically political or exclusively dedicated to controlling deviation. Still, school discipline can offer a promising vantage point for better understanding the controversies and failures of the *obshchestvennost'* campaign at large, given the networking perspective suggested in this article. The school was seen both by the state and

the public as a primary institution beyond the family that was responsible for children's and adolescents' behavior. As such, it was involved in many cases of juvenile delinquency at least to some extent, and thus linked into the network of civil and penal institutions dealing with social control of minors. In Khrushchev's educational reform, school discipline had been hardly touched upon, preserving all everyday disciplinary practices intact. This lets us observe how the school attuned its disciplinary action to the surrounding institutional change both on the discursive level and in terms of its relations with other controlling institutions. I argue that broadening of social control during the Thaw affected how the school treated out-of-school misdemeanors, as well as the symbolic position of school in the network of institutions for upbringing, control and peer pressure.

The following discussion is organized into four sections. In the first section I present some background data on the school whose disciplinary records provided the case for this study, and on the disciplinary functions of the *pedsovet*. In the next two sections I analyze the sphere of influence and instruments of control employed by the school by analyzing accusations, threats and actual punishments recorded at School Number 1. The last section discusses the position of the school in the network of institutions responsible for the control of adolescent behavior.

Case study: *pedsovet* at “School Number 1”

In this paper, I present a case study of documented disciplinary action in one rank-and-file Soviet school continuing from 1953 throughout Khrushchev's rule and for several years into the Brezhnev period, until 1968. The school is located in the town of Toropetz in northwestern Russia that was a district center (*raitsentr*) of the Velikiye Luki oblast until 1957, and of the

Kalinin oblast afterwards. The town had a population of 15–16 thousand in the 1960s, with thriving economic activity in several small factories that produced furniture, garments, liquor, etc.

The records of the school used for the case study¹² reflect demographic trends, policy changes, organizational and material problems common to the full-time general school education of the epoch. School Number 1 was the largest of the 5 town schools in Toropetz at the time. The total enrollment fluctuated between 475 students (1957/1958 academic year) and 915 (1963/1964). The number of teachers at the school during this period remained at about 40, and most of the teachers, including the director, stayed at the school throughout the whole period. Roughly a quarter of them were male, including the school's director, the school's party cell secretary, and one of the deputy directors. The dip in student numbers in the mid-1950s followed by steady growth by the 1960s clearly reflects the “war dent” in the population, and corresponds very well to the overall school population statistics in USSR in these years¹³. Students in grades 5 through 8 (incomplete secondary school) constituted the largest cohort in the school. The school had dormitories that housed students from nearby rural areas who came to get their middle or high school education, not offered by the smaller rural schools. The capacity of school facilities were insufficient, and the school, like most town schools of the time, operated in two shifts with half of the students attending classes in the afternoon. Being a complete secondary school, School Number 1 offered high school education (grades 8 through 10, later 9 through 11) — still a relatively scarce opportunity in Soviet society during Khrushchev's time. Beyond that, the school doesn't seem to be in any specific way privileged in terms of access to better human or material resources. All in all, the school was fairly representative of its own segment of complete

secondary town schools, which comprised 6% of all schools in the USSR in 1955, and 7.5% of all schools by 1969¹⁴.

The main subject of interest for this study is the pedagogical council of the school, encountered in documents mostly under its abbreviated name *pedsovet*. The pedagogical council was supposed to be a collective governance organ of a school. All teachers of a school, as well as other adults involved in some kind of educational work (such as librarian or pioneer leader) were automatically members of the pedsovet, presided over by the school's director. The pedsovet was an institution familiar since pre-revolutionary Russian schools. After the revolution, the Bolsheviks transformed it into the School Soviet, which was supposed to include community and student representatives, but soon Stalin's reforms of the 1930s restored the pedagogical council largely in its pre-revolutionary form¹⁵. While educational ordinances were regularly fiddling with the pedsovet guidelines, the spirit of its operation remained remarkably stable¹⁶. The duties of the pedsovet were mostly limited to formalities: approving plans for school work and teaching methods, reporting on academic performance and discipline, and making decisions to graduate or promote students to the next grade or hold them back. Policies on the frequency of meetings wavered between extremes of encouraging directors to hold more pedsovet meetings and urging them to limit the number of meetings to the bare minimum to spare overloaded teachers¹⁷. In practice, regardless of the current policy, School Number 1 typically held 12 meetings in an academic year with several extra meetings added in half of the observed years. The meetings were attended by the teachers reasonably well, but they seemed generally disinterested, an involved discussion in the pedsovet being an obvious and rare exception.

As one of the highest-ranking groups in the school responsible for discipline, the pedsovet could summon a student to the meeting to discuss infractions. This disciplinary form was definitely a Soviet development, not attested before the Revolution, and also a pre-Khrushchev phenomenon. Not later than 1951 “summoning to the meeting of pedagogical council for admonition” (*vyzov dlia vnusheniia na pedagogicheskii sovet*) was listed as a legitimate disciplinary measure¹⁸. Yet this disciplinary function remained somewhat unofficial and was never directly mentioned in the ordinances regulating the pedsovet. The idea that parents could also be subject to collective reprobation by the teachers was simultaneously promoted by the 1951 minister’s order by encouraging “the question of the upbringing of their children” to be discussed by the pedsovet¹⁹. Thus, the institutional arrangement to use the pedsovet as a shaming scene for misbehaving children and their irresponsible parents was not an innovation of Khrushchev’s Thaw, in the same way that other institutions of the *obshchestvennost’* campaign were not. But it supposedly could have become more prominent during the late 1950s and early 1960s, as some researchers argue that it was the *scale* of the activities of public institutions that was a novelty of the Thaw²⁰. The disciplinary action taken and recorded by the pedsovet and the school’s director in 1953—1968²¹ allows to test this assumption, and more generally, to trace how the school was handling its share of the social control problem in the changing disciplinary climate of Soviet society.

School accusations

The pedsovet focused on disciplining only those students who the teachers regarded as the most serious troublemakers. The details of the records provide demographic information about the students involved as well as accusations brought against them. In this section I provide some

descriptive statistics on demography and analyze accusations to reconstruct the zone of social control assumed by the school.

At the end of each term (quarter of the school year), all the students were awarded grades for behavior, but as a disciplinary measure, the behavior grade could be lowered²². The decision to lower the grade was typically taken by the teacher responsible for the class (*klassnyi rukovoditel'*), and rubber-stamped by the pedsovet. The record of this action usually has a short clause describing the behavioral problem that was the reason for lowering the grade. Lowering of the behavior grade was regarded as a serious action that affected only a small fraction of students each term. Being summoned to the pedsovet was an even more serious disciplinary action that affected only several students in a year (see Table 1). In the case of a summoned student, the minutes typically present the teachers' side of the story on the offenses, along with some of the questioning, demanded confessions and promises, and suggested punishment.

The gender of the schoolchildren who were disciplined is predominantly male. Only 24 records deal with female students (4.5%). The most intensely disciplined cohort was secondary school (grades 5 through 7, later 8, ages 10 through 14), with 75% of all cases in this age group.

Most of the disciplined students were accused of trivial infringements characteristic of everyday school life: truancy, poor academic achievement, rudeness, noisiness, talking in class, disobedience, fighting, and various pranks. For misbehavior deemed more serious, chances were higher that the student would be summoned to the pedsovet for admonition. Accusations of hooliganism, alcohol abuse, getting in trouble with the police, and being a bad influence on children were associated with being 3 to 5 times more likely to end up standing before the

pedsovet. The summoned students were also more likely to be accused of disobedience, idleness, out-of-school misconduct, disrupting school lessons and events, theft, lying, and smoking. Other offenses, including rudeness to teachers, fighting, bad behavior in school, and truancy were associated with decreased risk of being summoned to the pedsovet. And those students who were often late to classes, brought banned items to school, showed up in inappropriate attire, or tampered with their grade records were never summoned.

It is worth noting that an infringement that happened outside school and after school hours could be among the reasons for disciplinary action taken by the school. Accusations for clearly out-of-school misdemeanors were voiced in 15% of all recorded disciplinary cases (73 times total). Moreover, those infractons that could be more visible to the outside public, like being drunk, were in general more likely to trigger more serious disciplinary response by the school, including reprobation by the pedsovet.

It was hypothesized in the end of the previous section that if schools were to respond in some way to Khrushchev's new paradigm of social control, disciplinary functions of the pedsovet could have become more prominent during Khrushchev's time. Yet the data on the yearly numbers of the disciplined students in School Number 1 put clear limitations on this interpretation (see Table 1). First of all, the overall share of the school population disciplined by the pedsovet remained almost constant. Hence, the policy changes related to social control were not directly reflected in the intensity of the school's traditional disciplinary process. The absolute numbers of students who were actually summoned to stand in front of the pedsovet each year remained very small. Obviously the maximum number was limited by the time available for pedsovet meetings. Nevertheless, we may consider the percentage of disciplined students who

were summoned, in order to estimate the relative weight of this particular disciplinary method. If anything, this weight was steadily decreasing in the late 1950s, with its highest point closer to the anti-hooligan campaign of 1956 than to the soft-line policies of 1959. Later spikes of the percentage could arguably be associated with the turns to hard-line policies of 1961 and 1964. Thus, reprobation by the pedsovet was hardly seen as a soft-line alternative punishment for minors. Finally, it is hard to see a consistent pattern in the share of out-of-school cases prosecuted by the pedsovet. What is probably suggestive is the growing percentage of out-of-school cases in 1960—1962, corresponding to the height of the *obshchestvennost'* campaign. This is compatible with the idea that the campaign made the school more responsive to the behavior of children outside of the traditional school domain, but the absolute numbers of cases are again so modest that any quantitative trends should be inferred with caution. Given all these limitations, in order to trace diachronical change in the pedsovet's operation we need to turn to qualitative analysis of the character of the offenses.

Table 1. The number of disciplined students, by academic year.

Academic year	Total disciplined	% of school population	Summoned to pedsovet (%)	Out of school cases (%)
1953/1954	54	6.6%	1 (1.9%)	3 (6.1%)
1957/1958	32	6.7%	7 (21.9%)	4 (11.5%)
1958/1959	30	6.0%	4 (13.3%)	4 (13.8%)

1959/1960	31	5.5%	3 (9.7%)	2 (6.7%)
1960/1961	49	7.3%	2 (4.1%)	9 (19.1%)
1961/1962	39	5.0%	5 (12.8%)	8 (20.5%)
1962/1963	51	5.6%	4 (7.8%)	4 (7.1%)
1963/1964	47	5.1%	3 (6.4%)	6 (12.8%)
1964/1965	59	7.1%	17 (28.8%)	19 (32.6%)
1965/1966	39	4.7%	7 (17.9%)	7 (17.6%)
1966/1967	26	3.4%	4 (15.4%)	1 (4.0%)

An official definition of the expectations of the Soviet state on the appropriate behavior for children and adolescents was given by the “Code for Students” published in 1943, though its practical and symbolic value was diminishing rapidly during Khrushchev’s time²³. In respect to out-of-school behavior, the Rules required polite and decent demeanor in the streets, public places, and in encounters with teachers and adults. Rules stepped into the family life, requiring pupils to obey and help their parents, look after their younger siblings, and keep their rooms clean. Beyond general expectations about good behavior, the Rules contained several specific prohibitions, in particular, cursing, smoking and gambling. With the forms of expected behavior thus defined, two necessary conditions were to be fulfilled to make it palpable to social control by the school: access to information on misbehavior and legitimacy of punishment.

The information on the out-of-school behavior of the students was apparently obtained by the teachers via several channels, including teachers' own observations, communication with other children, parents and neighbors, and police officers, in cases when students got in trouble with the police. The boundaries of legitimacy to punish behavior outside of the classroom are best traced by looking into the actual accusations employed in the school's disciplinary records. Some of the accusations were quite unspecific—"improper behavior outside of school" (*nepravil'noe povedenie vne shkoly*). But those that provide more context are clearly gendered. For boys, the most typical offense after smoking is theft or robbery. Often this means adolescents taking money from younger children. Such episodes are expected to be discovered and prosecuted at school since they happen between the schoolchildren and thus fulfill both information access and legitimacy conditions. Violence to other students and to adults in the streets, especially when drunk, was another reason to be prosecuted by the school. Punished episodes not related to violence include various kinds of vandalism (breaking windows and lamps, arson, breaking into the local jail), petty theft (anything from a ball to a bicycle), alcohol abuse, smoking, insults to passers-by and cursing. This behavioral spectrum clearly corresponds to the blurred idea of petty hooliganism introduced in the criminal code in 1956.

Girls were disciplined very rarely by the school, and especially seldom for out-of-school misbehavior (only 5 cases). The repertoire of infringements registered for girls in the 15 years of records available is very short. In one case, a girl has stolen money from her aunt, and was violent to her. Interestingly, the girl's actions in this case were not labeled as hooliganism. Instead one female teacher launched a tirade at the *pedsovet* that this type of behavior doesn't fit gender standards: "Your aunt doesn't force you to live with her. You should behave yourself

with your aunt. It's a shame that you don't understand that you are a girl – a gentle creature. You don't have this quality.” [Female, 7th grade, Feb 28., 1967]²⁴. All other cases of “improper behavior” presupposed sexual activity, which at least in one case ended up in pregnancy.

The chronological distribution of the accusations in the disciplinary records of School Number 1 suggests that some changes in the boundaries of legitimacy of punishment for out-of-school offenses were underway during the period. Episodes mentioned in the 1950s are confined to what happened in the streets, either near the cinema where teachers were supposed to be present to monitor students at night, or as reported by the police. There are only 3 occasional mentions of “lying to parents” in the accusations, most likely referring to a student's failure to communicate his trouble at school to his parents. But beginning in 1961, new reasons for punishing a child at school for bad behavior at home appeared in the records that were not directly motivated by school troubles—insubordination to parents, leaving home without permission, or a rude and disparaging attitude toward parents²⁵. This type of offense often served to augment the list of ordinary sins of a schoolchild, but it sometimes became the primary trigger for disciplinary action at school. One 11th-grader was summoned to the teachers' meeting [Jan. 8, 1965] for pushing (hitting) his mother at home when she refused to give him money. He didn't show up at the meeting and his mother appeared there alone, only to be reprimanded for improper upbringing of her son. This process of extending school control into the private family sphere reflects the parallel process of expanding control of hooliganism on private home spaces, as well as a general blurring of the border between public and private, typical of the era²⁶. Thus we see how the zone of school control that the Stalinist “Code for students” only claimed on paper was implemented in actual disciplinary practice by the school after Khrushchev's Thaw.

Simultaneously, beginning in the early 1960s, out-of-school infringements mentioned in the disciplinary records were becoming more diverse. In particular, the lists of a typical hooligan's offenses described above were peppered with sporadic references to breaking some rule completely unrelated to school. Examples include swimming in the lake out of season, and the accusation of a child for propensity to vagrancy²⁷ — a distant reverberation of the adult campaign against “parasites”²⁸. The most manifest example where the school would use any conceivable rule to punish a student is an accusation of a boy for “breaking the rules of bicycle riding: riding on a sidewalk without holding the handlebar”²⁹. Seemingly, in this and similar cases, the schoolteachers felt obliged to respond to any misbehavior of children. This could indeed be a sign of the times of the *obshchestvennost'* campaign, when any juvenile deviation was readily blamed on faulty upbringing, either by the family or the school³⁰. There is evidence that School Number 1 actually felt this scrutinizing public gaze. In a director's order issued in February of 1960, the director reprimands his PE teacher, offering a peculiar narrative that stands out by its triviality even in the context of the epoch: “Today, PE teacher comrade B. did not take measures to make sixth-grade students walk in formation from the school to the stadium and back, as a result many students ran along without coats (*bezhalii razdetymi*) causing surprise to passersby, and the 6A class, returning from the stadium, got into a collective skirmish on Sovetskaya street, causing legitimate surprise to passing citizens”³¹. In this ordinary scene of children's liveliness, the central agents who created serious trouble for a teacher were twice mentioned as anonymous passersby, acting solely by their “legitimate surprise”. The reaction of the school to perceived public expectations was to try to ensure that something was being done about discipline. These changes discernible in the language and content of accusations in the

disciplinary records of School Number 1 suggest that at least rhetoric, if not practice, of punishing out-of-school behavior acquired more power during Khrushchev's era.

School disciplinary tools: threats and reality

The inventory of formal disciplinary action that a Soviet school could legally apply to a student was rather short. It included lowering the grade for behavior, reprimand (*vygovor*) and stern reprimand (*strogii vygovor*). All these measures affected the reputation of a student at school as well as his informal status among teachers. Yet by themselves they were of little significance to his or her life outside school. Its effect on the life trajectory started if and when the in-school status was converted into out-of-school social capital.

There were two official ways for disclosing problematic in-school status to the outside community at the disposal of Soviet school teachers and administration. The first way was to provide a bad characterization (*kharakteristika*) and/or indicate a lowered behavior grade in the student's records at graduation. Bad characterization from the school left almost no opportunity for the student to enter college (*vuz*), and seriously affected their employment prospects. The school's director regularly threatened misbehaving highschoolers with a bad recommendation when reprimanding them in his orders. The second way boils down to the expression of refusal to work with a troublesome student on the part of the teachers that effectively means pushing him out of the current school collective. Inside school, this pushing out meant transfer to another class or grade retention, thus moving the student into the area of responsibility of another classroom teacher (*klassnyi rukovoditel'*)³². The refusal of the entire school collective to work with a student would result in pushing him out of the school entirely. With the cooperation or

connivance of the parents and the student himself this could be done rather smoothly, by ensuring that the student has registered for another educational institution, most often a School for Working Youth, or found a job if he has reached 16, the legal age for employment. This scenario of dropping out happened to dozens of academically unsuccessful students of School Number 1 every year, mostly in grades 7 and 8³³.

In the case of a student unwilling to drop out, the school could apply transfer to another school and expulsion from school. It is important to note that, although present in the official list of allowed punishments, these could not in fact be meted out by the school itself. The decision to expel a student was made by the pedagogical council of the school but took effect only upon approval by local departments of education (*RONO*)³⁴. It was further complicated by the compulsory education law that rendered intolerable a situation when an adolescent expelled from the school would have been on the street. In practice, departments of education blocked most of the requests to expel students, because otherwise it would be their responsibility to provide schooling or employment for a former student. Educational officials including the minister of education I. A. Kairov complained about this policy during the 1950s, but to no avail³⁵.

An illustration of the impossibility of expulsions is found in a 1961 case at School Number 1. The *pedsovet* decided to expel a boy who called his old female teacher a “half-baked bourgeois” (*burzhuika nedorezannaia*). The teachers qualified this act as a political insult, appealed that the teacher was a party member and enumerated other offenses of the student to make the expulsion case more sound³⁶. Despite these efforts, the same student was featured in the next year’s disciplinary records. Obviously, the department of education had not approved the expulsion. The only type of offense that led to actual expulsion was pregnancy for schoolgirls. One of the

teachers who worked at School Number 1 in the 1970s recounted that expulsion in such cases happened without much ado, and after giving birth girls were placed in the evening school. Therefore, in practice the school was not able to use expulsion as a disciplinary measure to deal with juvenile delinquency. Something had to be done in school to maintain order.

There are other disciplinary actions beyond expulsion that were mentioned in the minutes of disciplinary discussions but in fact could not be administered by the school. These mentions were apparently employed by teachers as threats to stimulate behavioral improvement. A threat to send a student to a *colony* (*otoslat' v koloniju*) became a sign of the times. What educational or penitentiary institution was meant by the menacing word “colony” is never specified in the minutes, the only clear intention of its usage being to recall the image of a closed institution with prison regime. The first mention of the colony by the teachers of School Number 1 is found in 1958 and then it periodically appears until the mid-1960s. In fact, the only way to get to a real colony for a schoolchild was after sentencing by court on a criminal case. Hence the claims about transfer to the colony as a disciplinary measure were totally illegitimate on the part of teachers.

Beginning in 1961 an additional legal path was to send the student to a closed boarding school by the decision of the Commission on the Affairs of Minors³⁷. In 1964, in the course of liberalizing reforms in the juvenile justice system, some of the former colonies were transferred to the Ministry of Education to become ‘special boarding schools’. The number of such schools was growing in the late 1960s³⁸. It is likely that schools of this type were meant by the teachers when they said “colony”. Evidence for this is present in one of the transcripts when the colony is mentioned during a discussion with a student, but the final decision states: “Petition the

Commission on the Affairs of Minors to transfer [the student's name] to the special school.”³⁹

The threat of the colony was used by the teachers to affirm their potential to mete out real punishment, as opposed to “mere talking”. In one of the discussions in 1965, this intention is stated very overtly: “it is time to run someone through the police and send them to the colony, otherwise they think that nothing will be done to them, that we’ll only talk to them and let them go.”⁴⁰ Apparently, this is nothing more than wishful thinking of the teacher willing to counter something to the widely perceived powerlessness of teachers over the impunity of adolescent delinquency.⁴¹

The meager inventory of enforceable punishments described above highlights their secondary position in relation to the central punishment resource available to school—the disciplinary process itself. Summoning the student to stand in front of the *pedsovet* was deemed by the teachers to be the strongest among the many forms of collective disciplinary pressure at school. Public denouncement of the student’s offenses at such a meeting where he must be present personally also happened in other in-school contexts, including Young Pioneer and Komsomol meetings, at the level of a single class squad or a whole school organization, parent’s committee, or class and all-school meetings. It can be said that school was the primary institution responsible for collective pressure on adolescents, analogous to a party cell for a party member or a labor union for an adult worker. But the pressure on misbehaving adolescents had one important distinctive feature—it was accompanied by pressure on their parents, as during Khrushchev’s era incorrect upbringing was seen as the primary cause of delinquency, and the parents were blamed for their children’s sins.⁴² In terms of school discipline, that meant parents were commonly summoned to the *pedsovet* and got their share of shaming along with the children. Moreover, the

pedsovet had the opportunity (and used it on several occasions in the records of School Number 1) to inform the parent's workplace of the poor behavior of their children, thus provoking one more shaming meeting for the parent in another collective.

The technique of provoking disciplinary action by other collectives and institutions was one of the typical strategies to arrange public pressure on a schoolchild at the *pedsovet*. In the minutes for December 28, 1963 the 10th grade students are said to have asked the *pedsovet* to discuss the behavior of their classmate who was caught drunk and misbehaving in public places. *Pedsovet*, in its turn, may order the Komsomol organization to discuss the same student and his offenses, as by the 1950s, youth organizations—Young Pioneers and Komsomol—were integrated in the school system and subordinated to disciplinary and educational goals of the teachers. The pedagogical council of School Number 1 regarded the disciplinary functions of children's collectives as reliable enough as to entrust them with implementation of punishments, for example, expulsion from the Young pioneers, ordering them “to discuss the question of a student remaining a pioneer”⁴³. The *pedsovet* could also write to the *mestkom* at the enterprise where his parents work to again discuss the student's behavior, and finally, could petition the commission on the affairs of minors and/or the educational department to consider the student's case and decide on further disciplinary action.

The position of the school as a disciplining institution in the transformed borders of legitimacy of the mid-1960s can be best demonstrated by an episode of a *pedsovet* in which the school's director and teachers were very articulate in formulating their disciplinary intentions. The minutes opens with the characterization of the student's behavior by the director:

Anatoliy T. has been behaving inappropriately since the beginning of the school year. He turned to crime: on August 28, he stole 130 roubles with Kapralov in Velikie Luki. They were caught and the case was considered by the commission on the affairs of minors. Yearly warning. But he continued public order infringements. He participated in card games. S. (a student of School Number 5) stole 100 roubles from his mother. T. won it. Not all the money was returned. The case is being handled by the prosecutor's office again. On February 27 he participated in the beating of a 7th grade student of School Number 2. He hit him on the nose with a heavy object. His actions have become socially dangerous (*obshchestvenno opasnymi*). The prosecutor's office is completing the case. Inside school they stole the electric boards from the physics laboratory.

We have to consider the case ourselves.⁴⁴

In his speech, the director recounts the infringements committed by the student and mentions that thefts qualifying as real crimes were dealt with by the appropriate penal institutions, namely the commission on the affairs of minors and the prosecutor's office. Yet he concludes his speech with the phrase that “we *have to* consider the case ourselves” (emphasis added — K.M.), addressing teachers. This is an open recognition of the obligation of the school to respond to adolescent crime that arose in the public discourse of the Thaw. The role of the school as an institution that does not so much replace, but rather *duplicates* penal functions of the official justice system is overt here. Judging by the director's words, school officials perceived themselves in this context as a quasi-judicial institution that participates in the legal process. The discussion of behavior at the pedsovet functions like a quasi-trial. The alternative decisions available to the teachers who have placed themselves in the position of judges are twofold. Later in the meeting, one of the teachers clearly articulates them: “The question at this moment is posed as such: either the pedsovet takes responsibility for him, or we send him to the colony”⁴⁵.

Given that the threats to send to the colony on the part of the teachers were in fact illegitimate, the real dilemma that faced the teachers was predominantly symbolical, rather than practical. The symbolic choice of the teachers is either to protect the student from other institutions, basically by leaving him at school and forgiving him, while threatening and warning him, or renounce him, thus adding to the pile of arguments to higher authorities to push the student to a less favorable educational and legal path.

The systematic nature and the real effects of the school's choice in respect to adolescent delinquents in Khrushchev's era is attested to by oral history. A man who studied at a school in the same town where School Number 1 is located in the 1950s and early 1960s has recalled in an interview about his classmates pushed along the Soviet version of the school-to-prison pipeline:

You don't know how it used to be: a bill on petty hooliganism was passed in '64. The party decided to eliminate it. So half of our class was in jail there.

— *Seriously, straight into jail? Into the colony for minors?*

Well, to a colony.

— *For what?*

For hooliganism. If you had a fight at the dancing floor, three years [in jail — K.M.]. Five people from my class went to jail. It was that way—we were in 9th grade. When you graduated from the 8th grade: we [the teachers — K.M.] can take you [admit to high school — K.M.], or we can leave you. <...>

Then, many guys from my class went to jail.

— *They never returned to school?*

Nope.

— *It turns out, they were put in jail in 9th grade?*

In ninth, in ninth. But well, in ninth grade — they expelled everyone from school first.

— *Ah, this is how it happened. And they were put in jail after that?*

And after that they found the reason to put them in jail.⁴⁶

The dates in these recollections may in some respects be clearly inaccurate, as the speaker has most likely mixed up Khrushchev's 1956 law on petty hooliganism with Brezhnev's 1966 law that introduced prison terms for "malignant hooliganism"⁴⁷. But I believe the main sentiment communicated to be authentic to the epoch. Here, the speaker points out that those who were pushed out of the school were at high risk to be victimized by a mass repressive mechanism of the anti-hooligan campaign. The institution that "found the reason to imprison" was clearly not school, but the school is blamed in the first place for this happening at all, totally in accord with a popular sentiment of blaming faulty upbringing in the 1960s.

School amidst penal institutions

One of the institutional transformations in the juvenile delinquency handling that took shape during Khrushchev's era was that offenders too young to be convicted were offered an alternative path, special boarding schools that were less harsh than prison, yet still highly marginalizing. The entrance to this path was guarded not by the criminal justice system, but by *obshchestvennost'* represented by the commissions on the affairs of minors. These representatives of the public were empowered to define what kind of transgressions ought to lead into these schools. And as a side effect, for the general secondary school this new institutional

setup meant new opportunity to deal with disciplinary problems, as teachers could now petition the commissions to deal with those whom they saw as intolerable.

The school's initiative was seen behind many of those who ended up in these closed institutions. A director of one of these special boarding schools summarizes his 10 years of experience of governing such a school in a talk given before the Ministry of Education in 1974. He blames the general schools that they hardly ever showed any concern for the fate of the "adolescent whom they send us"⁴⁸. Thus the director sees school as the primary agent forwarding delinquent cases to them, while officially the commissions on the affairs of minors were making the decisions. Soviet authors of the legal commentary on the practice of the commissions also indicate that schools were indeed the source of the majority of cases for the commissions. And often these were not real offenders, but unruly children breaking school discipline, whom "the school and pedagogical council could have easily handled"⁴⁹. The most extreme examples cited in legal commentaries mentioned school directors who provided lists with dozens of names of misbehaving students to commissions and to the police to be handled by these authorities or to be directly sent to the colonies⁵⁰.

The commissions did not necessarily cooperate with schools on every case. The materials sent by the central prosecutor's office to the regional offices to guide their work with the commissions give the figure of 8% of total cases that resulted in sending a student to a special school. But this same document illustrates other ways in which commissions (illegally) cooperated with school's disciplinary accusations, in particular, by imposing fines: "If L. will start going to school by 20/X-1966, only discussion [of his behavior — KM]. If he does not attend school, impose a fine on him of 20 rubles"⁵¹. Responsible commissions were likely to decline a significant part of the

disciplinary cases suggested by the school where there were no legal grounds for action: a figure of more than 50% declined was cited for the commission of one Moscow district⁵². But there still remained a chance for a school student that his disciplinary offenses would accumulate and make a case to be placed in a special school. There is some evidence that this risk was higher before 1964⁵³.

Thus the school functioned as a link in the chain of institutions of legal and quasi-legal social control. The case of the minutes of disciplinary meetings of a pedagogical council shows that during the period of active experiments in outsourcing social control to the public, these institutes were not isolated from one another but interacted, both formally and informally. The mode of their interaction can hardly be called cooperation, though. It was more likely driven by the intention to make adolescent misbehavior someone else's problem.

Conclusion

Public shaming of delinquent youth and their parents at the meeting of the school's pedagogical committee (pedsovet) in its form very much resembles the general trend of Khrushchev's Thaw when criminal punishment was being replaced by collective reprobation. But analysis of the school disciplinary record during the period shows that the soft-line paradigm is not applicable to the disciplinary functions of the pedsovet: it did not so much serve to ease the plight of minor offenders, but was rather in many cases an additional punishment imposed by the school on top of penalties by other authorities. In the early 1960s the school was further embedded in the chain of institutions controlling juvenile delinquency thanks to the newly created link to the Commission on the Affairs of Minors that made transferring students to the penal system a more

accessible option to the school. Alongside it, the same period witnessed the expansion of social control of adolescents by the school beyond the school walls. More precisely, the transformation was not so much about the real tightening of control, but about more pronounced in-school disciplinary reaction to out-of-school infringements. The same process that made school more ready to convert deviation in the street or in the family into discipline, helped schools to, conversely, convert in-school discipline into social deviation.

Thus, the disciplinary transformations of the *pedsovet* during the Thaw are better described using networked perspective that places school in the network of the institutions responsible for social control of minors. In terms of the networked view, the point of the Thaw soft-line policies was that it opened the gates between social control institutions to dump problematic cases in all directions. Some parts of the judicial system used these gates to dump burdensome cases to the public, and the public used them to dump annoying members of the collective into the judicial system.

The changing penal role of the school is in accord with the general trend of the epoch to de-legalize social control, passing it over to the working collectives and the public. Many scholars have drawn attention to the side effect of this policy that the public armed with the authority of the *obshchestvennost'* campaign and its institutional arrangements defined misbehavior ever more broadly, thus producing more and more deviance cases. Brian LaPierre labeled this effect in case of *Druzhina* for public order, “an insitutional amplifier of deviance”⁵⁴. In this paper, I use the case of the secondary school to argue that the amplifier effect was indeed more general for the epoch. The formal and informal links of the school with other collectives and institutions responsible for juvenile delinquency in Soviet society created the system that functioned like an

amplifier. Once the signal of adolescent misbehavior got into this network of institutions, it could be amplified over and over again by passing the signal over the links that the school had to other institutions and causing them to add their response. The signal could just as well be suppressed by the school and other nodes of the network. The evidence for this is the tiny share of the student population involved in serious disciplinary action at School Number 1, since most of the cases were simply not escalated to that level. Yet once the disciplinary amplifier was activated, the school was very unlikely to take the student's side, as no such cases are attested at School Number 1 in 15 years.

In comparison with other social control mechanisms, school discipline has its own specifics and punishment tools. In the first place, the disciplinary process affected in-school status and reputation of a student that in turn influenced the educational opportunities and outcomes of deviant adolescents. By increasing the responsibility of the school to discipline adolescent misbehavior in out-of-school situations, Soviet society contributed to the conversion of ever more broadly defined behavioral deviations into educational failure.

1 National Research University Higher School of Economics, Saint Petersburg, Russia; Institute of Russian Literature (Pushkinskij Dom) of the Russian Academy of Sciences

2 Jeffrey S Hardy, *The Gulag After Stalin: Redefining Punishment in Khrushchev's Soviet Union, 1953–1964* (2016); Miriam Dobson, *Khrushchev's Cold Summer: Gulag Returnees, Crime, and the Fate of Reform After Stalin* (2009); on policies towards juvenile delinquency, see Catriona Kelly, *Children's World: Growing up in Russia, 1890–1991* (2007); Ann Livschiz, “De-Stalinizing Soviet Childhood: The Quest for Moral Rebirth, 1953–1958,” in *The Dilemmas of de-Stalinization: Negotiating Cultural and Social Change in the Khrushchev Era*, ed. Polly Jones (2006), 117–34; Juliane Fürst, “The Arrival of Spring? Changes and Continuities in Soviet Youth Culture and Policy Between Stalin and Khrushchev,” in *The Dilemmas of de-Stalinization* (2006), 149–67; Mariya Kristina Gal'marini, “Moral'no Defektivnyj, Prestupnik Ili Psihicheski Bol'noj? Detskie Povedencheskie Deviacii I Sovetskie Discipliniruyushchie Praktiki: 1935—1957,” in *Ostrova Utopii: Pedagogicheskoe I Social'noe Proektirovanie Poslevoennoj Shkoly (1940—1980-E)*, ed. Il'ya Kukulin AND Mariya Majofis AND Petr Safronov (M., 2015), 35–106.

3 LaPierre notes that in the anti-hooligan campaign agency was granted to the public to redefine deviance Brian LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev's Russia: Defining, Policing, and Producing Deviance During the Thaw* (2012); Tsipursky sees growth of youth agency as a side-effect of discursive framing of youth as activists Gleb Tsipursky, “Citizenship, Deviance, and Identity: Soviet Youth Newspapers as Agents of Social Control in the Thaw-Era Leisure Campaign,” *Cahiers Du Monde Russe* 49, no. 4 (2008): 629–50; Gleb Tsipursky, “Conformism and Agency: Model Young Communists and the Komsomol Press in the Later Khrushchev Years, 1961–1964,” *Europe-Asia Studies* 65, no. 7 (2013): 1396–1416; see also Juliane Fürst, *Stalin's Last Generation: Soviet Post-War Youth and the Emergence of Mature Socialism* (2010), chap. 5, Kiyohiro Matsudo, “Obshchestvennost' in the Struggle Against Crimes: The Case of People's Vigilante Brigades in the Late 1950s and 1960s,” in *Obshchestvennost' and Civic Agency in Late Imperial and Soviet Russia* (2015), 152–70.

4 Oleg Kharkhordin, *The Collective and the Individual in Russia: A Study of Practices* (1999); LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev's Russia*; Edward Cohn, *The High Tide of a Communist: Postwar Party Discipline and the Values of the Soviet Regime* (2015).

5 Which is in tune with the high-profile campaign against domestic hooliganism, see Brian LaPierre, “Private Matters or Public Crimes: The Emergence of Domestic Hooliganism in the Soviet Union, 1939–1966,” in *Borders of Socialism* (2006), 191–207.

6 Several related phenomena are well-covered in the literature, including the reduction of the prison population, and a vague definition of the petty hooliganism in the 1956 law that allowed familiar features of Soviet working-class lifestyle to become subject to criminal prosecution, see Hardy, *The Gulag After Stalin*; LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev’s Russia*; Gleb Tsipursky, “Worker Youth and Everyday Violence in the Post-Stalin Soviet Union,” *European History Quarterly* 45, no. 2 (2015): 236–54

7 Yoram Gorlizki, “Delegalization in Russia: Soviet Comrades’ Courts in Retrospect,” *The American Journal of Comparative Law* 46 (1998): 403–25; Matsudo, “Obshchestvennost’ in the Struggle Against Crimes.”

8 Kelly, *Children’s World*; Fürst, *Stalin’s Last Generation*.

9 Gorlizki, “Delegalization in Russia.”

10 LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev’s Russia*; Dobson, *Khrushchev’s Cold Summer*; Deborah A Field, *Private Life and Communist Morality in Khrushchev’s Russia* (2007); Matsudo, “Obshchestvennost’ in the Struggle Against Crimes.”

11 Many of the cited authors resort to this argument at some point, including LaPierre, Dobson, Tsipursky, and others.

12 The documents and interviews used in this paper were collected in 2011 during anthropological fieldwork in the town. To preserve confidentiality of the participants of the study the names mentioned in the quoted text are omitted.

13 Mervyn Matthews, *Education in the Soviet Union: Policies and Institutions Since Stalin* (2012), 7.

14 Ibid., 8.

15 Larry Eugene Holmes, *The Kremlin and the Schoolhouse: Reforming Education in Soviet Russia, 1917–1931* (1991).

- 16 “Ob Uluchshenii Raboty Pedagogicheskikh Sovetov V Shkolah Rsfsr,” *Sbornik Prikazov I Rasporyazhenij Po Narkomprosu RSFSR*, no. 9 (1939): 3–5; M. M. Dejneko, ed., “Polozhenie O Pedagogicheskom Sovete Nachal’noj, Semiletnej I Srednej Shkoly. Utverzhdeno Ministerstvom Prosveshcheniya Rsfsr 26 Oktyabrya 1952 G.” in *Spravochnik Direktora Shkoly* (Moskva, 1955), 72–76; “Polozhenie O Ped. Sovete Vos’miletnej Shkoly, Srednej Obshcheobrazovatel’noj Trudovoj Politekhnikeskoy Shkoly S Proizvodstvennym Obucheniem I Vechernej (Smennoj) Srednej Obshcheobrazovatel’noj Shkoly Rsfsr,” *Sbornik Prikazov I Instrukcij M-Va Prosveshcheniya RSFSR*, no. 33 (1960): 19–23.
- 17 “Ob Uporyadochenii Byudzheta Vremeni Uchitelya,” *Sbornik Prikazov I Rasporyazhenij Min. Pros. RSFSR*, no. 9 (1955).
- 18 M. M. Dejneko, ed., “Ob Ukreplenii Discipliny V Shkole. Iz Prikaza Ministra Prosveshcheniya Rsfsr N 1092 Ot 12 Dekabrya 1951 G.” in *Spravochnik Direktora Shkoly* (M., 1954), 178–87.
- 19 Ibid.
- 20 Dobson, *Khrushchev’s Cold Summer*; LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev’s Russia*.
- 21 The sources used include the books of the director’s orders, and the minutes of the meetings of the pedagogical council of the school. Unfortunately, the book of minutes for the years 1955—1956 was missing.
- 22 Normally all students would receive “5”, the behavior grade can be lowered by one point, or by two points for repeated or serious offenders. The grade of “2” was not used, as it meant automatic expulsion.
- 23 KA Maslinsky, “Codes of Conduct in the Soviet School System. Part 1: The Teacher as the Mouthpiece of the State,” *Russian Education & Society* 58, nos. 5-6 (2016): 428–51.
- 24 Since the documents used in the study were just kept locally at the school, they lack formal archival identification. To attribute the source when referencing disciplinary actions, I indicate the date of the record in the minutes as well as gender and grade level of the students involved.

25 The accusations of this kind were not very frequent in the school records, but they consistently appear 2 times a year on average between 1961 and 1967.

26 LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev's Russia*, 59–95; Field, *Private Life and Communist Morality in Khrushchev's Russia*.

27 Male, 5th grade, [May 28, 1965].

28 Sheila Fitzpatrick, "Social Parasites: How Tramps, Idle Youth, and Busy Entrepreneurs Impeded the Soviet March to Communism," *Cahiers Du Monde Russe* 47, no. 1 (2006): 377–408.

29 Male, 6th grade, [June 3, 1961].

30 Fürst, "The Arrival of Spring? Changes and Continuities in Soviet Youth Culture and Policy Between Stalin and Khrushchev."

31 Order #139, February 26, 1960.

32 In a Soviet school, the classroom teacher was the primary person responsible for the behavior of the students in her class. The classroom teacher stayed with her class for several years while children were in secondary school, in principle, from 5th to 11th grade. This system of a classroom teacher following her class the next year helped to form stable relationships between class and teacher, and was hypothesized to be in part responsible for the relatively good discipline characteristic of Soviet and Post-Soviet schools in comparison to schooling in the Anglo-American tradition Neil Hufton and Julian Elliott, "Motivation to Learn: The Pedagogical Nexus in the Russian School: Some Implications for Transnational Research and Policy Borrowing," *Educational Studies* 26, no. 1 (2000): 115–36.

33 Dropping out is documented by the director's orders indicating the student's further destination. Dropping-out events of this type spanned the whole academic year.

34 Dejneko, "Ob Ukreplenii..."

35 Livschiz, "De-Stalinizing Soviet Childhood," 121.

36 Male, 7th grade, [May 4, 1961]. The vigorous pressure to expel a student on this rather trivial offense may be explained in part by the teachers' possible fear of political prosecution of the offended teacher for her social origins. The descendants of former wealthy traders (*kuptsy*) were known by the town community to stay in town and held important places during Soviet time.

37 P. G. Volodarskij, *Prakticheskoe Posobie Dlya Komissij Po Delam Nesovershennoletnih* (Moskva, 1964).

38 Kelly, *Children's World*, 272, 279.

39 Male, 8th grade, [March 9, 1966]; Similar case: female, 7th grade, [Feb. 28, 1967].

40 Said at the discussion of an incident in the dormitory when a group of male students switched off the lights and tried to sexually assault the girls present in the room. The situation was promptly terminated by the teacher present nearby. Male 11th grade, 9th grade, 6th grade, and two 7th-graders. [March 18, 1965].

41 On the laments of the public and educators about the perceived impunity of juvenile misdemeanors, see Livschiz, "De-Stalinizing Soviet Childhood."

42 LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev's Russia*; Edward D Cohn, "Coercion, Reeducation, and the Prophylactic Chat: Profilaktika and the Kgb's Struggle with Political Unrest in Lithuania, 1953–64," *The Russian Review* 76, no. 2 (2017): 272–93.

43 Said at the discussion where a boy was accused of robbing and beating young children. Male, 7th grade, [Nov. 3, 1962].

44 Male, 8th grade, [March 9, 1966].

45 [March 9, 1966].

46 Male, studied at school in the same town in 1956 to 1966. Interview recorded in July, 2011.

47 LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev's Russia*.

48 A. G. Potekhin, *Sovmestnaya Rabota Pedagogicheskogo Kollektiva Slancevskoj Srednej Shkoly I Komissij Po Delam Nesovershennoletnih Po Vypusku I Ustrojstvu Vospitannikov I Podderzhaniyu Svyazi S*

Vypusknikami Shkoly, Ministerstvo Prosveshcheniya RsfSr. Otdel Special'nyh Shkol. Materialy Kursov Direktorov Special'nyh Shkol RsfSr (Moskva, 1974), 3.

49 V. S. Pronina, *Kommentarij K Polozheniyam O Komissiyah Po Delam Nesovershennoletnih* (Moskva, 1968), 108.

50 Volodarskij, *Prakticheskoe Posobie Dlya Komissij Po Delam Nesovershennoletnih*, 42.

51 *Informacionnoe Pis'mo O Sostoyanii Prokurorskogo Nadzora Za Zakonnost'yu Postanovlenij Komissij Po Delam Nesovershennoletnih* (Moskva, 1967), 5.

52 Volodarskij, *Prakticheskoe Posobie Dlya Komissij Po Delam Nesovershennoletnih*, 111.

53 Ibid., 112.

54 LaPierre, *Hooligans in Khrushchev's Russia*, 150.